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Topology Notes

Laura J. Person

State University of New York at Potsdam

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Dedication

These notes are dedicated to all my topology students: past, present, and future.

Chapter 1

The Space $\mathbb{R}^n$

Definition 1.1. As a set, $\mathbb{R}^n$ is the set of all ordered n -tuples of real numbers; that is, $\mathbb{R}^n$ is the set of all $(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n)$ where x_i is a real number for $i = 1, 2, \dots, n$. For each i , the number x_i is called the i^{th} **coordinate** of $(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n)$. Elements of $\mathbb{R}^n$ are called **points**.

The set $\mathbb{R}^n$ together with the structure that will be developed is called **n -space**. The set of real numbers is identified with 1-space, and is called “the real line.” Also, 2-space is called “the plane.” An algebraic structure is put on $\mathbb{R}^n$ as follows:

The **addition** of two points $(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n)$ and $(y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n)$ in $\mathbb{R}^n$ is defined by

$$(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n) + (y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n) = (x_1 + y_1, x_2 + y_2, \dots, x_n + y_n).$$

The **scalar product** of a real number a and a point $(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n)$ in $\mathbb{R}^n$ is defined by

$$a(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n) = (ax_1, ax_2, \dots, ax_n),$$

where for each i , ax_i is the product of the real numbers a and x_i .

Proposition 1.2. Let $X = (x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n)$, $Y = (y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n)$, and $Z = (z_1, z_2, \dots, z_n)$ be any three points in $\mathbb{R}^n$. Let θ denote the point in $\mathbb{R}^n$ all of whose coordinates are 0; that is $\theta = (0, 0, \dots, 0)$. (θ is usually called the **origin**.) Also, let a and b be any real numbers. Then each of the following hold.

1. $(X + Y) + Z = X + (Y + Z)$.
2. $X + \theta = X$.
3. $X + Y = Y + X$.
4. $X + (-1)X = \theta$.
5. $(a + b)X = aX + bX$.
6. $a(X + Y) = aX + aY$.

7. $(ab)X = a(bX)$.

8. $1X = X$.

Remark 1.3. Those who have studied linear algebra may notice that Proposition 1.2 shows that $\mathbb{R}^n$ with addition and scalar multiplication is a vector space over the real numbers.

Remark 1.4. In the case of the plane or 3-space, the addition defined above corresponds to the usual geometric definition of addition of vectors as the diagonal of the associated parallelogram.

Definition 1.5. If $X = (x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n)$ and $Y = (y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n)$ are any two elements in $\mathbb{R}^n$, we define the **distance** between X and Y by

$$d(X, Y) = \sqrt{(x_1 - y_1)^2 + (x_2 - y_2)^2 + \dots + (x_n - y_n)^2}.$$

Notice that the domain of the function d is $\mathbb{R}^n \times \mathbb{R}^n$ and its range is in $\mathbb{R}$.

Proposition 1.6. Let X and Y be points in $\mathbb{R}^n$. Then the following hold.

1. $d(X, Y) \geq 0$.
2. $d(X, Y) = 0$ if and only if $X = Y$.
3. $d(X, Y) = d(Y, X)$.

To establish one further property of the distance function, the notions of inner product and norm will be helpful.

Definition 1.7. If $X = (x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n)$ and $Y = (y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n)$ are any two points in $\mathbb{R}^n$, we define the **inner product** of X and Y by

$$\langle X, Y \rangle = x_1 y_1 + x_2 y_2 + \dots + x_n y_n.$$

Proposition 1.8. Let X, Y , and Z be points in $\mathbb{R}^n$, and let a be any real number. Then each of the following hold.

1. $\langle X, X \rangle = (d(X, \theta))^2$.
2. $\langle X, Y \rangle = \langle Y, X \rangle$.
3. $\langle X, Y + Z \rangle = \langle X, Y \rangle + \langle X, Z \rangle$.
4. $a\langle X, Y \rangle = \langle aX, Y \rangle = \langle X, aY \rangle$.

Theorem 1.9. Cauchy-Schwartz Inequality

For any points X and Y in $\mathbb{R}^n$, $\langle X, Y \rangle \leq \sqrt{\langle X, X \rangle} \sqrt{\langle Y, Y \rangle}$.

[Hint: One way to prove this is to consider $\langle X + aY, X + aY \rangle$ as a polynomial in the variable a , and use Proposition 1.7].

Definition 1.10. The **norm** $\|X\|$ of a point X in $\mathbb{R}^n$ is defined to be the distance from X to θ , that is, $\|X\| = d(X, \theta)$.

Proposition 1.11. For any X and Y in $\mathbb{R}^n$, $\|X\|^2 = \langle X, X \rangle$ and $d(X, Y) = \|X - Y\|$.

Proposition 1.12. For any X and Y in $\mathbb{R}^n$, $\|X + Y\| \leq \|X\| + \|Y\|$.

Corollary 1.13. For any X, Y , and Z in $\mathbb{R}^n$, $d(X, Y) \leq d(X, Z) + d(Z, Y)$.

This inequality is called the **Triangle Inequality**.

Summary of Distance in $\mathbb{R}^n$:

For any X, Y , and Z in $\mathbb{R}^n$,

1. $d(X, Y) \geq 0$, and $d(X, Y) = 0$ if and only if $X = Y$.
2. $d(X, Y) = d(Y, X)$.
3. $d(X, Y) \leq d(X, Z) + d(Z, Y)$.

Mathematicians have decided that the above three properties of the distance function are the most important ones when generalizing the distance function.

Chapter 2

Introduction to Metric Spaces

We use the basic properties of distance in $\mathbb{R}^n$ as a model for a more general and abstract notion of distance as follows.

Definition 2.1. A **metric** on a set M is a function $d : M \times M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ such that

1. $d(x, y) \geq 0$ for all $x, y \in M$ and equality holds if and only if $x = y$,
2. $d(x, y) = d(y, x)$ for all $x, y \in M$, and
3. (**Triangle Inequality**) $d(x, y) \leq d(x, z) + d(z, y)$ for all $x, y, z \in M$.

The pair (M, d) is called a **metric space**. If the function d is understood from context, we say “ M is a metric space.” The elements of M are called **points**.

Example 2.2. The **usual metric** on $\mathbb{R}^n$ is the distance function d that is defined by

$$d((x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n), (y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n)) = \sqrt{(x_1 - y_1)^2 + (x_2 - y_2)^2 + \dots + (x_n - y_n)^2}.$$

In Chapter 1, it was proved that d is a metric on $\mathbb{R}^n$.

The verifications that the rest of the examples are metrics are left to the students.

Example 2.3. Let M be any set, and define the **discrete metric** d on M by

$$d(x, y) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } x \neq y \\ 0 & \text{if } x = y \end{cases}.$$

Example 2.4. Define the **taxicab metric** d on $\mathbb{R}^n$ by

$$d((x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n), (y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n)) = \sum_{i=1}^n |x_i - y_i|.$$

Example 2.5. Define the **square metric** d on $\mathbb{R}^n$ by

$$d((x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n), (y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n)) = \max\{|x_1 - y_1|, |x_2 - y_2|, \dots, |x_n - y_n|\}.$$

Exercise 2.6. Let $(\mathbb{R}^2, d)$ be a metric space. The **unit circle** is the set of points in $\mathbb{R}^2$ which are distance 1 from $(0, 0)$. Draw the different unit circles in $\mathbb{R}^2$ for each of the metrics 2.2 through 2.5. Explain why 2.4 and 2.5 have the names they do.

Example 2.7. Let (M, d) be a metric space and let a be a positive real number. Then the function d' defined by $d'(x, y) = ad(x, y)$ is a metric on M .

Proposition 2.8. Let d be the usual metric on $\mathbb{R}^n$, let d' denote the taxicab metric on $\mathbb{R}^n$, and let d'' denote the square metric on $\mathbb{R}^n$. For any X and Y in $\mathbb{R}^n$,

1. $d''(X, Y) \leq d(X, Y) \leq \sqrt{n}d''(X, Y)$, and
2. $d''(X, Y) \leq d'(X, Y) \leq nd''(X, Y)$.

Example 2.9. Let (M, d) be a metric space. Then the function d' defined by $d'(x, y) = \min\{d(x, y), 1\}$ is a metric on M .

Example 2.10. Let (M, d) be a metric space. Then the function d' defined by $d'(x, y) = \frac{d(x, y)}{1 + d(x, y)}$ is a metric on M .

Exercise 2.11. Show that the following do not define metrics on $\mathbb{R}^2$.

1. $d((x_1, x_2), (y_1, y_2)) = |x_1 - y_1|$.
2. $d((x_1, x_2), (y_1, y_2)) = x_1y_1 - x_2y_2$.
3. $d((x_1, x_2), (y_1, y_2)) = x_1^2 + x_2^2 + y_1^2 + y_2^2$.

Example 2.12. Let (M, d) be a metric space, and let N be a nonempty subset of M . Then d' is a metric on N , where d' is the restriction of d to $N \times N$.

Example 2.13. Let $(M_1, d_1), (M_2, d_2), \dots, (M_n, d_n)$ be metric spaces, and let $M = M_1 \times M_2 \times \dots \times M_n$. Define $d : M \times M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by

$$d((x_1, \dots, x_n), (y_1, \dots, y_n)) = \max\{d_1(x_1, y_1), d_2(x_2, y_2), \dots, d_n(x_n, y_n)\}.$$

Then d is a metric on M .

Chapter 3

Open Sets in Metric Spaces

Definition 3.1. Let (M, d) be a metric space. Given $x \in M$ and a positive real number ε , the **open ball** centered at x with radius ε is

$$B_d(x, \varepsilon) = \{y \in M \mid d(x, y) < \varepsilon\}.$$

We will write $B(x, \varepsilon)$ for $B_d(x, \varepsilon)$ when d is clear from the context. A subset U of M is called **open** if for every $x \in U$ there exists a positive real number ε so that $B(x, \varepsilon) \subseteq U$.

Proposition 3.2. Open balls are open.

Proposition 3.3. Basic Properties of Open Sets

Let (M, d) be a metric space. Then the following hold.

1. $\emptyset$ and M are both open.
2. The union of any collection of open sets is open.
3. The intersection of a finite collection of open sets is open.

Example 3.4. The ray (a, ∞) is open in $\mathbb{R}$ with the usual metric.

Example 3.5. The set $\{(x, y) \mid x > 0 \text{ and } y > 0\}$ is open in $\mathbb{R}^2$ with the usual metric.

Examples 3.6. The following are not open in $\mathbb{R}^2$ with the usual metric.

1. The x -axis.
2. $\{(x, y) \mid x^2 + y^2 \leq 1\}$.
3. $\{(x, y) \mid xy \geq 1\}$.

Proposition 3.7. Let U be a subset of $\mathbb{R}^n$. Then the following are equivalent.

1. U is open in $\mathbb{R}^n$ with the usual metric.
2. U is open in $\mathbb{R}^n$ with the taxicab metric.

3. U is open in $\mathbb{R}^n$ with the square metric.

Example 3.8. Let M be any set, and consider the metric space (M, d) , where d is the discrete metric. Then every subset of M is open.

Example 3.9. Let $(M_1, d_1), (M_2, d_2), \dots, (M_n, d_n)$ be metric spaces, and let $M = M_1 \times M_2 \times \dots \times M_n$. Define $d : M \times M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by

$$d((x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n), (y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n)) = \max\{d_1(x_1, y_1), d_2(x_2, y_2), \dots, d_n(x_n, y_n)\}.$$

Then an open ball in M is a product of open balls in $M_1, M_2, \dots, M_n$, respectively.

Chapter 4

Continuous Functions on Metric Spaces

Definition 4.1. Let (X_1, d_1) and (X_2, d_2) be metric spaces, let $f : X_1 \rightarrow X_2$ be a function, and let $a \in X_1$. Then f is called **continuous at a** if given $\varepsilon > 0$, there exists $\delta > 0$ such that if $x \in X_1$ and $d_1(a, x) < \delta$, then $d_2(f(a), f(x)) < \varepsilon$. f is simply called **continuous** if f is continuous at all $a \in X_1$.

Exercise 4.2. Let (X_1, d_1) and (X_2, d_2) be metric spaces, and let y be an element of X_2 . Define $f : X_1 \rightarrow X_2$ by $f(x) = y$ for all $x \in X_1$. Show that f is continuous.

Exercise 4.3. Let $(M_1, d_1), (M_2, d_2), \dots, (M_n, d_n)$ be metric spaces and let $M = M_1 \times M_2 \times \dots \times M_n$. Define $d : M \times M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by

$$d((x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n), (y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n)) = \max\{d_1(x_1, y_1), d_2(x_2, y_2), \dots, d_n(x_n, y_n)\}.$$

Define, for each $i = 1, 2, \dots, n$, $p_i : M \rightarrow M_i$ by $p_i((x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n)) = x_i$. These functions are called **projections**. Show that each projection is continuous.

Exercise 4.4. Let $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be defined by $f(x, y) = x + y$. Let $\mathbb{R}^2$ have the taxicab metric and let $\mathbb{R}$ have the usual metric. Show that f is continuous.

Exercise 4.5. Let $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be defined by $f(x, y) = xy$. Let $\mathbb{R}^2$ have the square metric and let $\mathbb{R}$ have the usual metric. Show that f is continuous. [Hint: To show f is continuous at (x_0, y_0) , show

$$|xy - x_0y_0| \leq |x_0||y - y_0| + |y_0||x - x_0| + |x - x_0||y - y_0|,$$

and for a given positive real number ε use $\delta = \frac{1}{3} \min \left\{ \frac{\varepsilon}{|x_0| + |y_0| + 1}, \sqrt{\varepsilon} \right\}$.]

Exercise 4.6. Let (M, d) be a metric space and let a be a positive real number. We have shown that the function d' defined by $d'(x, y) = ad(x, y)$ is a metric on M . Let M_d denote M with the d metric, and let M_a denote M with the d' metric.

- a) Let $f : M_d \rightarrow M_a$ be defined by $f(x) = x$. Show that f is continuous.
- b) Let $g : M_a \rightarrow M_d$ be defined by $g(x) = x$. Show that g is continuous.

Exercise 4.7. Let (X_1, d_1) , (X_2, d_2) , and (X_3, d_3) be metric spaces, and let $f : X_1 \rightarrow X_2$ and $g : X_2 \rightarrow X_3$ be continuous. Show that the composition $g \circ f : X_1 \rightarrow X_3$ is continuous.

Proposition 4.8. Let (X_1, d_1) and (X_2, d_2) be metric spaces and let $f : X_1 \rightarrow X_2$ be a function. Then f is continuous if and only if $f^{-1}(V)$ is open in X_1 whenever V is open in X_2 .

Exercise 4.9. Let $\mathbb{R}^2$ and $\mathbb{R}$ have their usual metrics, and show that addition and multiplication are continuous by using 3.7, 4.4, 4.5, and 4.8.

Chapter 5

The Definition of a Topological Space

Definition 5.1. Let X be a set and let $\mathcal{T}$ be a collection of subsets of X . The pair $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is called a **topological space** if each of the following hold:

1. $\emptyset$ and X are elements of $\mathcal{T}$.
2. The union of any collection of elements of $\mathcal{T}$ is an element of $\mathcal{T}$.
3. The intersection of a finite collection of elements of $\mathcal{T}$ is an element of $\mathcal{T}$.

If $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is a topological space, then $\mathcal{T}$ is called a **topology** on X .

Remarks 5.2. Some Terminology

1. If (X, d) is a metric space, then consider the collection $\mathcal{T}$ of all open subsets of X . Then by 3.3, $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is a topological space. This topology is called the **metric topology** on X induced by d .
2. The **usual topology** on $\mathbb{R}^n$ is defined to be the metric topology on $\mathbb{R}^n$ induced by the usual metric on $\mathbb{R}^n$.
3. Let $(X, \mathcal{T})$ be a topological space. If $U \subseteq X$, then U **is open** means " $U \in \mathcal{T}$." This generalizes the use of the word "open" in the context of metric spaces. Also, an element of X is usually called a **point**.
4. When $\mathcal{T}$ is understood from the context or does not need to be explicitly described, then we will say " X is a topological space" to mean " $(X, \mathcal{T})$ is a topological space."

Exercise 5.3. Let X be any set and let $\mathcal{T} = \{\emptyset, X\}$. Show that $\mathcal{T}$ is a topology on X . This topology is called the **indiscrete topology** on X .

Exercise 5.4. Let X be any set and let $\mathcal{T}$ be the collection of all subsets of X . Show that $\mathcal{T}$ is a topology on X . This topology is called the **discrete topology** on X . Show that the discrete topology on X is the same as the metric topology induced by the discrete metric.

Exercise 5.5. Find all possible topologies on the set $X = \{a, b\}$.

Exercise 5.6. Let X be any set and define

$$\mathcal{T} = \{U \mid U \subseteq X, \text{ and } X - U \text{ is finite or } X\}.$$

Show $\mathcal{T}$ is a topology on X .

Chapter 6

Closed Sets

Definition 6.1. Let X be a topological space. A subset C of X is called **closed** if $X - C$ is open.

Theorem 6.2. Let X be a topological space. Then

1. X and $\emptyset$ are closed.
2. The intersection of any collection of closed sets is closed.
3. The union of a finite collection of closed sets is closed.

Definition 6.3. Let X be a topological space, and let A be a subset of X .

1. By 6.2, A is a subset of at least one closed set, namely X itself. The **closure of** A is the intersection of all closed sets that contain A as a subset. The closure of A will be denoted $Cl(A)$.
2. By the definition of topological space, at least one subset of A is open, namely the empty set. The **interior of** A is the union of all open subsets of A . The interior of A will be denoted $Int(A)$.

Proposition 6.4. Let X be a topological space, and let A be the subset of X . Then

1. $Int(A) \subseteq A \subseteq Cl(A)$,
2. $Cl(A)$ is closed and $Int(A)$ is open,
3. A is closed if and only if $A = Cl(A)$, and
4. A is open if and only if $A = Int(A)$.

Proposition 6.5. Let X be a topological space, and let A and B be subsets of X . Then

1. $Cl(A) \cup Cl(B) = Cl(A \cup B)$, and

2. $Cl(A) \cap Cl(B) \supseteq Cl(A \cap B)$; equality may fail.

Proposition 6.6. Let X be a topological space, and let A and B be subsets of X . Then

1. $Int(A \cap B) = Int(A) \cap Int(B)$, and
2. $Int(A \cup B) \supseteq Int(A) \cup Int(B)$; equality may fail.

Definition 6.7. Let A and B be sets. We say **A intersects B** if $A \cap B \neq \emptyset$. We say **A and B are disjoint** if $A \cap B = \emptyset$.

Theorem 6.8. Let X be a topological space, let A be a subset of X , and let p be a point in X . Then p is an element of the closure of A if and only if every open set containing p intersects A .

Definition 6.9. Let X be a topological space, let A be a subset of X , and let p be a point in X . Then p is called a **limit point** of A in X if for every open set U containing p , $U - \{p\}$ intersects A . The set of all limit points of A will be denoted A' .

Corollary 6.10. (to Theorem 6.8) Let X be a topological space, and let A be a subset of X . Then $Cl(A) = A \cup A'$.

Definition 6.11. Let X be a topological space and let $A \subseteq X$. Then **boundary** of A is $Cl(A) \cap Cl(X - A)$. The boundary of A is denoted $Bd(A)$.

Exercise 6.12. Show each of the following.

1. $A \subseteq B$ does not imply $Bd(A) \subseteq Bd(B)$.
2. $A' \subseteq Bd(A)$ may be false.
3. Show that $Bd(A) \subseteq A'$ may also be false.

For Exercises 6.13 through 6.15, A and B are subsets of a topological space X .

Exercise 6.13. Prove that $Int(A)$ and $Bd(A)$ are disjoint and their union is $Cl(A)$.

Exercise 6.14. Prove $Bd(A) = \emptyset$ if and only if A is both open and closed.

Exercise 6.15. Prove A is open if and only if $Bd(A) = Cl(A) - A$.

Chapter 7

Bases

Definition 7.1. Let $(X, \mathcal{T})$ be a topological space, and let $\mathcal{B}$ be a collection of subsets of X . Then $\mathcal{B}$ is a **basis** for $\mathcal{T}$ if $\mathcal{B} \subseteq \mathcal{T}$ and every nonempty element of $\mathcal{T}$ is a union of elements of $\mathcal{B}$. The elements of $\mathcal{B}$ are called **basic open sets**. We say that $\mathcal{T}$ is **generated** by $\mathcal{B}$. The plural of “basis” is “bases.”

Theorem 7.2. Let $(X, \mathcal{T})$ be topological space, and let $\mathcal{B}$ be a subset of $\mathcal{T}$. Then $\mathcal{B}$ is a basis for $\mathcal{T}$ if and only if for each element U of $\mathcal{T}$ and for each point p in U , there is an element B of $\mathcal{B}$ such that $p \in B$ and $B \subseteq U$.

Note: By the above theorem, if (X, d) is a metric space, then the collection of all open balls is a basis for the metric topology.

Theorem 7.3. Let X be a set, and let $\mathcal{B}$ be a collection of subsets of X . Then $\mathcal{B}$ is a basis for some topology on X if and only if the following hold:

1. If $x \in X$, then there exists $B \in \mathcal{B}$ such that $x \in B$, and
2. If $B_1, B_2 \in \mathcal{B}$ and $x \in B_1 \cap B_2$, then there exists $B_3 \in \mathcal{B}$ such that $x \in B_3$ and $B_3 \subseteq B_1 \cap B_2$.

Example 7.4. Let $(X, \mathcal{T})$ and $(Y, \mathcal{S})$ be topological spaces. Let $\mathcal{B}$ be the collection of all subsets of $X \times Y$ of the form $U \times V$, where $U \in \mathcal{T}$ and $V \in \mathcal{S}$.

1. Prove that $\mathcal{B}$ is a basis for some topology on $X \times Y$. The topology that $\mathcal{B}$ generates is called the **product topology**.
2. Provide an example to show that $\mathcal{B}$ itself may not be a topology.

Example 7.5. The following are bases for some topology on $\mathbb{R}$. [For the presentation, show this is true for $\mathcal{B}_2$ and $\mathcal{B}_4$.]

$$\mathcal{B}_1 = \{(a, b) \mid a < b\}.$$

$$\mathcal{B}_2 = \{[a, b) \mid a < b\}.$$

$$\mathcal{B}_3 = \{(a, b] \mid a < b\}.$$

$$\mathcal{B}_4 = \{(a, \infty) \mid a \in \mathbb{R}\}.$$

$$\mathcal{B}_5 = \{(-\infty, b) \mid b \in \mathbb{R}\}.$$

$$\mathcal{B}_6 = \{B \subseteq \mathbb{R} \mid \mathbb{R} - B \text{ is finite}\}.$$

Note: The topology generated by $\mathcal{B}_2$ above is called the **lower-limit topology** on $\mathbb{R}$ or $\mathbb{R}_{bad}$.

Theorem 7.6. Let X be a set, and let $\mathcal{B}$ be a basis for some topology on X . Let $\mathcal{T}$ be the topology generated by $\mathcal{B}$, and let A be a subset of X .

1. $x \in Cl(A)$ if and only if for every $B \in \mathcal{B}$ that contains x , B intersects A .
2. $x \in Int(A)$ if and only if there exists $B \in \mathcal{B}$ such that $x \in B$ and $B \subseteq A$.
3. $x \in A'$ if and only if for every $B \in \mathcal{B}$ that contains x , $B - \{x\}$ intersects A .

Exercise 7.7. For each of the following subsets of $\mathbb{R}$, determine the closure, interior, set of limit points, and boundary in the topologies generated by each of the bases given in 7.5.

1. $(1, 2)$
2. $\{1, 2\}$
3. $\mathbb{R} - \{1, 2\}$
4. $\mathbb{R} - \{1, \frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{3}, \frac{1}{4}, \dots\}$

Chapter 8

Separation Properties

Definition 8.1. Let X be a topological space.

1. X is **Hausdorff** if for each pair of distinct points p and q in X , there are disjoint open sets U and V such that $p \in U$ and $q \in V$.
2. X is **regular** if for every point p in X and every closed set A with $p \notin A$, there exist disjoint open sets U and V such that $p \in U$ and $A \subseteq V$.
3. X is **normal** if for every pair of disjoint closed sets A and B , there exist disjoint open sets U and V such that $A \subseteq U$ and $B \subseteq V$.

Exercise 8.2. Determine which of the six topologies on $\mathbb{R}$ given in Section 7 are Hausdorff.

Theorem 8.3. If X and Y are Hausdorff spaces, then $X \times Y$ with the product topology is Hausdorff.

Theorem 8.4. If X is Hausdorff, then every singleton subset $\{p\}$ of X is closed.

Theorem 8.5. X is regular if and only if for each point p in X and each open set U containing p , there is an open set V such that $p \in V$ and $Cl(V) \subseteq U$.

Theorem 8.6. X is normal if and only if for each closed set A in X and open set U containing A , there is an open set V such that $A \subseteq V$ and $Cl(V) \subseteq U$.

Definition 8.7. Let (X, d) be a metric space, let p be a point in X , and let $\varepsilon > 0$. The **closed ball** about p of radius ε is $\{x \in X \mid d(p, x) \leq \varepsilon\}$.

Proposition 8.8. Closed balls are closed.

Theorem 8.9. Metric spaces are regular.

Definition 8.10. Let A be a subset of a metric space (X, d) , and let p be a point in X . The **distance from p to A** is denoted $d(p, A)$ and is defined by $d(p, A) = \inf\{d(p, a) \mid a \in A\}$.

Proposition 8.11. *Let (X, d) be a metric space, let A be a subset of X , and let p be a point in X . If A is closed, then $d(p, A) = 0$ if and only if p is an element of A .*

Proposition 8.12. *Let (X, d) be a metric space, and let A and B be subsets of X . Then the set of all points p such that $d(p, A) < d(p, B)$ is open.*

Theorem 8.13. *Metric spaces are normal.*

Proposition 8.14. *Let $(X, \mathcal{T})$ be a topological space, and let Y be a subset of X . Let $\mathcal{S}$ be the collection of all sets $U \cap Y$ such that $U \in \mathcal{T}$. Then $\mathcal{S}$ is a topology on Y .*

Definition 8.15. $\mathcal{S}$ as defined above is called the **subspace topology** on Y , and Y is called a **subspace** of X .

Theorem 8.16. *Every subspace of a Hausdorff space is Hausdorff.*

Theorem 8.17. *Every subspace of a regular space is regular.*

Theorem 8.18. *Every closed subspace of a normal space is normal.*

Chapter 9

Countability Properties

Definition 9.1. Let A be a subset of a topological space X . We say that A is **dense** in X if $\text{Cl}(A) = X$. A space X is called **separable** if it has a countable dense subset.

Theorem 9.2. $\mathbb{R}$ with the usual topology is separable.

Definition 9.3. A space X is **2nd countable** if X has a countable basis.

Theorem 9.4. A 2nd countable space is separable.

Theorem 9.5. A subspace of a 2nd countable space is 2nd countable.

Definition 9.6. A space X is **1st countable** if for every point p in X , there is a countable collection $\{U_n\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$ of open sets of X , each of which contains p , such that if V is an open set containing p , then there exists $n \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $U_n \subseteq V$.

Theorem 9.7. A metric space is 1st countable.

Definition 9.8. A topological space is **Souslin** if every collection of pairwise disjoint open sets is countable.

Theorem 9.9. Separable spaces are Souslin.

Definition 9.10. Let $\{p_n\}$ be a sequence of points in a topological space X . We say that $\{p_n\}$ **converges** to a point p in X if for every open set U containing p , there exists a positive integer M such that $p_n \in U$ for all $n > M$.

Theorem 9.11. If p is a limit point of a set A in a 1st countable space X , then there is a sequence in A that converges to p .

Theorem 9.12. Every uncountable set in a 2nd countable space has a limit point.

Chapter 10

Covering Properties

Definition 10.1. Let A be a subset of a topological space X , and let $\mathcal{U} = \{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ be a collection of subsets of X . We say that $\mathcal{U}$ is a **cover** of A if $A \subseteq \bigcup_{\alpha \in J} U_\alpha$. $\mathcal{U}$ is called an **open cover** of A if $\mathcal{U}$ is a cover of A and each element of $\mathcal{U}$ is open. If $\mathcal{U}$ is a cover of A , then any subset of $\mathcal{U}$ that is also a cover of A is called a **subcover** of A . A space X is **compact** if every open cover of X has a finite subcover.

Theorem 10.2. Let X be a space whose topology is generated by a basis. Then X is compact if and only if every cover of X by basic open sets has a finite subcover.

Theorem 10.3. Let $(X, \mathcal{T})$ be a topological space, and let A be a subset of X . Then A is compact in the subspace topology if and only if every cover of A by elements of $\mathcal{T}$ has a finite subcover.

Theorem 10.4. A compact subset of a Hausdorff space is closed.

Theorem 10.5. A closed subset of a compact space is compact.

Theorem 10.6. A compact Hausdorff space is normal.

Definition 10.7. Let (X, d) be a metric space. A subset A of X is **bounded** if there exists a number r such that $d(p, q) < r$ for all points p and q in A .

Theorem 10.8. A compact subset of a metric space is bounded.

Theorem 10.9. If X and Y are compact spaces, then $X \times Y$ is compact in the product topology.

Theorem 10.10. In $\mathbb{R}$ with the usual topology, a closed interval is compact.

Theorem 10.11. In $\mathbb{R}^n$ with the usual topology, a set is compact if and only if it is closed and bounded.

Theorem 10.12. A space X is **Lindelof** if every open cover of X has a countable subcover.

Theorem 10.13. Every 2^{nd} countable space is Lindelof.

Theorem 10.14. Every uncountable subset of a Lindelof space has a limit point.

Definition 10.15. A space is **countably compact** if every countable open cover has a finite subcover.

Theorem 10.16. A countably compact Lindelof space is compact.

Theorem 10.17. Let X be a Hausdorff space. Then X is countably compact if and only if every infinite subset of X has a limit point.

Theorem 10.18. Let X be a metric space. Then X is Souslin if and only if every uncountable subset of X has a limit point.

Theorem 10.19. Let X be a metric space. Then the following are equivalent.

1. X is separable.
2. X is 2^{nd} countable.
3. X is Souslin.
4. X is Lindelof.
5. Every uncountable subset of X has a limit point.

Definition 10.20. A collection of sets is said to have the **finite intersection property** if the intersection of any finite subcollection is nonempty.

Theorem 10.21. A topological space X is compact if and only if every collection $\{C_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in I}$ of closed sets with the finite intersection property satisfies $\bigcap_{\alpha \in I} C_\alpha \neq \emptyset$.

Corollary 10.22. Let X be compact. Suppose that $\{F_n\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$ is a family of non-empty closed subsets of X such that $F_{n+1} \subseteq F_n$ for all n . Then $\bigcap_{n \in \mathbb{N}} F_n \neq \emptyset$.

Definition 10.23. Let (X, d) be a metric space, and let A be a bounded subset of X . The **diameter** of A is denoted $\text{diameter}(A)$ and is defined by $\text{diameter}(A) = \sup\{d(x, y) \mid x, y \in A\}$.

Corollary 10.24. Let (X, d) be a compact metric space. Suppose that $\{F_n\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$ is a family of nonempty closed subsets of X such that $F_{n+1} \subseteq F_n$ for all n . Suppose also that $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} \text{diameter}(F_n) = 0$. Then $\bigcap_{n \in \mathbb{N}} F_n$ contains exactly one point.

Chapter 11

Continuity

Definition 11.1. Let X and Y be topological spaces, and let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ be a function. Then f is called **continuous** if $f^{-1}(V)$ is open in X whenever V is open in Y .

Note: By 4.3, if X and Y are metric spaces (and hence have metric topologies), then $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is continuous in the original " $\varepsilon - \delta$ " definition of continuity if and only if f is continuous according to the definition of continuous given above.

Theorem 11.2.

1. Constant functions are continuous.
2. The identity function from a space to itself is continuous.
3. If X is a topological space and A is a subspace of X , then the inclusion function $A \rightarrow X$ is continuous.
4. Compositions of continuous functions are continuous.

Theorem 11.3. Let X and Y be topological spaces and let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ be a function. Then the following are equivalent.

1. f is continuous.
2. $f^{-1}(C)$ is closed in X whenever C is closed in Y .
3. For every subset A of X , $f(\text{Cl}(A)) \subseteq \text{Cl}(f(A))$.
4. $f^{-1}(B)$ is open in X whenever B is a basic open set in Y .

Theorem 11.4. Pasting Lemma

Let X and Y be topological spaces, and let $X = A \cup B$, where A and B closed in X . Suppose $f : A \rightarrow Y$ and $g : B \rightarrow Y$ are continuous functions such that $f(x) = g(x)$ for every $x \in A \cap B$. Then the function $h : X \rightarrow Y$ defined by $h(x) = f(x)$ for $x \in A$ and $h(x) = g(x)$ for $x \in B$ is continuous.

Theorem 11.5. *Let X and Y be topological spaces.*

1. *The projection functions $p_1 : X \times Y \rightarrow X$ and $p_2 : X \times Y \rightarrow Y$ defined by $p_1(x, y) = x$ and $p_2(x, y) = y$ are continuous.*
2. *Let Z be a topological space, and let $f_1 : Z \rightarrow X$, $f_2 : Z \rightarrow Y$ and $f : Z \rightarrow X \times Y$ be functions such that $f(z) = (f_1(z), f_2(z))$ for all $z \in Z$. Then f is continuous if and only if both f_1 and f_2 are continuous.*

Theorem 11.6. *If $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is continuous and A is compact subset of X , then $f(A)$ is compact.*

Exercise 11.7. *Let $\mathbb{R}_u$ denote the real line with the usual topology, and let $\mathbb{R}_{bad}$ denote the real line with the topology generated by the basis $\mathcal{B}_2 = \{[a, b) \mid a < b\}$. Determine which of the following functions are continuous.*

1. *$f : \mathbb{R}_{bad} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}_u$ defined by $f(x) = x$.*
2. *$g : \mathbb{R}_u \rightarrow \mathbb{R}_{bad}$ defined by $g(x) = x$.*
3. *$f : \mathbb{R}_{bad} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}_{bad}$ defined by $f(x) = 1 - 2x$.*
4. *$g : \mathbb{R}_{bad} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}_{bad}$ defined by $g(x) = 2x - 1$.*

Definition 11.8. *Let X and Y be topological spaces, and let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ be a function. Then f is called a **homeomorphism** if f is a bijection, f is continuous, and f^{-1} is continuous. If such a function f exists, then we say X is **homeomorphic** to Y .*

Theorem 11.9. *For topological spaces X and Y , define $X \sim Y$ if and only if X is homeomorphic to Y . Then $\sim$ is an equivalence relation.*

Exercise 11.10. *Let $\mathbb{R}$ have the usual topology. Show that any two open intervals in $\mathbb{R}$ are homeomorphic. Show that $\mathbb{R}$ is homeomorphic to an open interval.*

Theorem 11.11. *If X is compact, Y is Hausdorff, and $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is a continuous bijection, then f is a homeomorphism.*

Chapter 12

Connectedness

Throughout this section, let X be a topological space.

Definition 12.1. X is called **disconnected** if there exist nonempty disjoint open sets U and V such that $X = U \cup V$. Such a pair (U, V) is called a **separation** of X . If X is not disconnected, then X is called **connected**.

Theorem 12.2. The following are equivalent.

1. X is disconnected.
2. There exists a nonempty proper subset of X that is both open and closed.
3. There exists a continuous function from X onto a two-point set with the discrete topology.

Theorem 12.3. The continuous image of a connected space is connected. Also, if X and Y are homeomorphic, then X is connected if and only if Y is connected.

Lemma 12.4. If (U, V) is a separation of X and if Y is a connected subset of X , then $Y \subseteq U$ or $Y \subseteq V$.

Theorem 12.5. Suppose $\{A_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ is a collection of connected subsets of X , each of which intersects a connected set B . Then $B \cup (\cup_{\alpha \in J} A_\alpha)$ is connected.

Theorem 12.6. If A is a connected subset of X and if $A \subseteq B \subseteq \text{Cl}(A)$, then B is connected.

Theorem 12.7. If X and Y are connected, then $X \times Y$ is connected.

Definition 12.8. Let S be a subset of $\mathbb{R}$. Then S is an **interval** if $a \in S$, $b \in S$, and $a < c < b$ imply $c \in S$.

Theorem 12.9.

1. Every interval in $\mathbb{R}$ (with the usual topology) is connected.
2. $\mathbb{R}_{bad}$ is disconnected.

Theorem 12.10. Intermediate Value Theorem

Let $f : [a, b] \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be continuous, and let k be a number between $f(a)$ and $f(b)$. Then there exists a number c between a and b so that $f(c) = k$.

Theorem 12.11. A Fixed Point Theorem

Let $f : [0, 1] \rightarrow [0, 1]$ be continuous. Then there exists $x \in [0, 1]$ so that $f(x) = x$.

Definition 12.12. Let $a \in X$. The **component** of a in X is the union of all connected subsets of X that contain a .

Proposition 12.13.

1. Each component in X is connected.
2. The distinct components in X form a partition of X .

Definition 12.14. A topological space is called **locally connected** if it has a basis of connected sets.

Proposition 12.15. X is locally connected if and only if every component of each open set is open in X .

Exercise 12.16. Give an example of a locally connected subset of $\mathbb{R}^2$ which is not connected. Give an example of a connected subset of $\mathbb{R}^2$ which is not locally connected.

Chapter 13

Path Connectedness

Throughout this section, let X be a topological space.

Definition 13.1. A **path** in X is continuous function $\alpha : [a, b] \rightarrow X$ (where $[a, b]$ denotes a closed interval in $\mathbb{R}$ with the usual topology). If α is a path and $\alpha(a) = x$ and $\alpha(b) = y$, we say that α is a **path from x to y** , and we call x the **initial** or **starting point** of α and we call y the **terminal** or **ending point** of α .

Proposition 13.2. Define a relation $\approx$ on X by $x \approx y$ if and only if there is a path from x to y . Then $\approx$ is an equivalence relation.

Definition 13.3. The equivalence classes in X under the relation $\approx$ are called the **path components** of X . If $x \approx y$ for all x and y in X , then X is called **path connected**.

Proposition 13.4.

1. The continuous image of a path connected space is path connected.
2. If A and B are path connected subsets of X and $A \cap B \neq \emptyset$, then $A \cup B$ is path connected.

Exercise 13.5. Let d denote the usual metric in $\mathbb{R}^n$, and let θ denote the origin. The **unit ball** in $\mathbb{R}^n$ is $\{x \mid d(x, \theta) \leq 1\}$, and the **unit sphere** in $\mathbb{R}^n$ is $\{x \mid d(x, \theta) = 1\}$.

1. Show that the unit ball is path connected.
2. Show that the unit sphere is path connected if and only if $n > 1$.

Proposition 13.6. If X is path connected, then X is connected.

Exercise 13.7. Give an example of a space that is connected but not path connected.

Exercise 13.8. Show that $\mathbb{R}^n$ is not homeomorphic to $\mathbb{R}$ when $n > 1$.

Definition 13.9. Let x be a point in X . Then X is called **locally path connected at x** if for every open set U containing x , there is a path connected open set V with $x \in V$ and $V \subseteq U$. If X is locally path connected at every point, then X is called **locally path connected**.

Theorem 13.10. The following are equivalent.

1. X is locally path connected.
2. If U is open in X , then every path component of U is open in X .

Theorem 13.11. If X is connected and locally path connected, then X is path connected.

Exercise 13.12. Give an example of a locally path connected space X and a continuous function $f : X \rightarrow Y$ with $f(X)$ not locally path connected.

Chapter 14

Quotient Spaces

Definition 14.1. Let X and Y be topological spaces, and let $p : X \rightarrow Y$ be an onto function. A subset U of X is called **saturated** (with respect to p) if $p^{-1}(p(U)) = U$. The function p is called a **quotient map** if p is continuous and $p(U)$ is open whenever U is an open saturated set.

Exercises 14.2.

1. Let $p : X \rightarrow Y$ be continuous. Show that if there exists a continuous function $f : Y \rightarrow X$ so that $p(f(y)) = y$ for all $y \in Y$, then p is a quotient map.
2. Let $A \subseteq X$. A **retraction** from X to A is a continuous function $r : X \rightarrow A$ so that $r(a) = a$ for all $a \in A$. Show that a retraction is a quotient map.

Exercise 14.3. Let X be a topological space, let A be any set, and let $p : X \rightarrow A$ be an onto function. Show that there is exactly one topology on A that makes p a quotient map.

Definition 14.4. The topology on A given by 14.3 is called the **quotient topology** on A , relative to p .

Exercise 14.5. Let $\mathbb{R}$ have the usual topology, and let $p : X \rightarrow \{a, b, c\}$ be the function defined by $p(x) = a$ if $x > 0$, $p(x) = b$ if $x < 0$, and $p(0) = c$. Find the quotient topology on $\{a, b, c\}$, relative to p .

Definition 14.6. Let X be a topological space on which an equivalence relation is defined, and let X^* denote the set of equivalence classes. Let $p : X \rightarrow X^*$ be the function that assigns each element of X to its equivalence class. Then X^* is called a **quotient space** when it has the quotient topology, relative to p .

Definition 14.7. Let $X = [0, 1] \times [0, 1]$, where X has the subspace topology as a subset of $\mathbb{R}^2$ with the usual topology. Define an equivalence relation on X as follows:

1. When $0 < x < 1$ and $0 < y < 1$, the point (x,y) is equivalent only to itself.
2. When $0 < x < 1$, then $(x,0)$ and $(x,1)$ are equivalent.
3. When $0 < y < 1$, then $(0,y)$ and $(1,y)$ are equivalent.
4. The following four points are equivalent: $(0,0), (0,1), (1,0), (1,1)$.

The resulting quotient space X^* is a **torus**.

Exercise 14.8. Similarly to the previous definition, define a Mobius band and a Klein bottle as quotient spaces. For extra fun, define a two-hole torus.

Chapter 15

Subbases

Proposition 15.1. *Let X be a set, and let $\mathcal{S}$ be a collection of subsets of X such that the union of all the elements of $\mathcal{S}$ is X . Let $\mathcal{B}$ be the collection of all finite intersections of elements of $\mathcal{S}$. Then $\mathcal{B}$ is a basis for some topology on X .*

Definition 15.2. *Let X be a set. A **subbasis** for a topology on X is a collection $\mathcal{S}$ of subsets of X whose union is X . The basis $\mathcal{B}$ given by Proposition 15.1 is called the **basis generated by the subbasis $\mathcal{S}$** , and the topology on X given by Proposition 15.1 is called the **topology generated by the subbasis $\mathcal{S}$** .*

Exercise 15.3. *Consider the following subsets of $\mathbb{R}$:*

$$\mathcal{S}_1 = \{(-\infty, a) \mid a \in \mathbb{R}\} \text{ and } \mathcal{S}_2 = \{(a, \infty) \mid a \in \mathbb{R}\}.$$

1. *Show that $\mathcal{S}_1 \cup \mathcal{S}_2$ is a subbasis.*
2. *Show that the topology generated by $\mathcal{S}_1 \cup \mathcal{S}_2$ is the usual topology on $\mathbb{R}$.*

Proposition 15.4. *Let X have the topology generated by a subbasis $\mathcal{S}$, and let Y be a topological space. A function $f : Y \rightarrow X$ is continuous if and only if $f^{-1}(S)$ is open for every $S \in \mathcal{S}$.*

Chapter 16

Product Topology

Definition 16.1. Let $\{X_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ be an indexed family of sets. The **Cartesian product** $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$ is the set of all functions $\mathbf{x} : J \rightarrow \cup_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$ such that $\mathbf{x}(\alpha) \in X_\alpha$ for each $\alpha \in J$. Frequently x_α is used to denote $\mathbf{x}(\alpha)$; x_α is called the α^{th} **coordinate** of $\mathbf{x}$. Also, $(x_\alpha)_{\alpha \in J}$ is frequently used to denote $\mathbf{x}$. If each of the sets X_α are the same set X , then $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$ is denoted X^J , and the elements of X^J are called **J-tuples** of elements of X .

Exercise 16.2. Let J be a nonempty set, and let $\{X_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ and $\{Y_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ be families of sets.

1. Prove that if $Y_\alpha \subseteq X_\alpha$ for all $\alpha \in J$, then $\prod_{\alpha \in J} Y_\alpha \subseteq \prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$.
2. Find condition(s) under which the converse to (1) is true.
3. Show $\left(\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha \right) \cap \left(\prod_{\alpha \in J} Y_\alpha \right) = \prod_{\alpha \in J} (X_\alpha \cap Y_\alpha)$.
4. Show $\left(\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha \right) \cup \left(\prod_{\alpha \in J} Y_\alpha \right) \subseteq \prod_{\alpha \in J} (X_\alpha \cup Y_\alpha)$.

Definition 16.3. Let $\{X_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ be an indexed family of topological spaces. For each $\beta \in J$, define the β^{th} **projection function** $p_\beta : \prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha \rightarrow X_\beta$ by $p_\beta(\mathbf{x}) = x_\beta$. The **product topology** on $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$ is the topology generated by the subbasis $\mathcal{S} = \{p_\beta^{-1}(U) \mid \beta \in J \text{ and } U \text{ is open in } X_\beta\}$. Unless explicitly stated otherwise, we will always assume that the topology on a product of topological spaces is the product topology.

Exercise 16.4. Let $J = \{1, 2\}$, and let X_1 and X_2 be topological spaces. Show that $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$ is homeomorphic to $X_1 \times X_2$.

For Theorems 16.5 through 16.12, let $\{X_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ be a family of topological spaces.

Proposition 16.5.

1. The projection functions are continuous.
2. The product topology is the smallest topology on $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$ for which the projection functions are continuous.

Theorem 16.6. Let Y be a topological space, and let $f_\alpha : Y \rightarrow X_\alpha$ be a function for each $\alpha \in J$. Define $f : Y \rightarrow \prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$ by $f(y) = (f_\alpha(y))_{\alpha \in J}$. Then f_α is continuous for all $\alpha \in J$ if and only if f is continuous.

Theorem 16.7. If X_α is Hausdorff for all $\alpha \in J$, then $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$ is Hausdorff.

Theorem 16.8. If A_α is a closed subset of X_α for all $\alpha \in J$, then $\prod_{\alpha \in J} A_\alpha$ is a closed subset of $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$.

Theorem 16.9. If $A_\alpha \subseteq X_\alpha$ for all $\alpha \in J$, then $Cl\left(\prod_{\alpha \in J} A_\alpha\right) = \prod_{\alpha \in J} Cl(A_\alpha)$.

Exercise 16.10. Let $\mathcal{B} = \{\prod_{\alpha \in J} U_\alpha \mid U_\alpha \text{ is open in } X_\alpha\}$.

1. Show that $\mathcal{B}$ is a basis for some topology on $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$.
2. Show that the topology generated by $\mathcal{B}$ is not necessarily the product topology.

Definition 16.11. The topology generated by $\mathcal{B}$ in Exercise 16.10 is called the **box topology**.

Exercise 16.12. Show that the statement of Theorem 16.6 may not be true if it is changed by giving $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$ the box topology instead of the product topology.

Chapter 17

The Tychonoff Theorem

Definition 17.1. Let X be a topological space. A collection $\mathcal{U}$ of open sets is **finitely inadequate** if $\mathcal{U}$ covers X but $\mathcal{U}$ has no finite subcover.

Theorem 17.2. Let X be a topological space given by a basis, and let Ψ be the collection of all finitely inadequate basic open covers of X . Then every chain by inclusion of elements of Ψ has an upper bound.

Theorem 17.3. Let X be a topological space with basis $\mathcal{B}$. If X is not compact, then there exists a finitely inadequate open cover $\mathcal{U}$ by elements of $\mathcal{B}$ such that if $B \in \mathcal{B} - \mathcal{U}$ then $\mathcal{U} \cup \{B\}$ has a finite subcover.

Lemma 17.4. Let X be a topological space with a basis $\mathcal{B}$ generated by a subbasis $\mathcal{S}$. Suppose that every open cover by subbasic open sets has a finite subcover. Further suppose that there exists a finitely inadequate basic open cover $\mathcal{U}$. Then there exists $B \in \mathcal{U}$ and finitely many elements $S_1, S_2, \dots, S_n$ of $\mathcal{S} - \mathcal{U}$ such that $B = S_1 \cap S_2 \cap \dots \cap S_n$.

Theorem 17.5. Alexander Subbasis Lemma

Let X be a topological space generated by a subbasis $\mathcal{S}$. If every open cover by elements of $\mathcal{S}$ has a finite subcover, then X is compact.

Theorem 17.6. Tychonoff Theorem

Let J be an indexing set, and let X_α be a topological space for each $\alpha \in J$. If X_α is compact for each $\alpha \in J$, then $\prod_{\alpha \in J} X_\alpha$ is compact.

Chapter 18

Urysohn's Lemma

This section is a sequence of exercises which together prove the following.

Theorem 18.1. Urysohn's Lemma

Let X be a normal space, and let A and B be disjoint closed subsets of X . Given any closed interval $[a, b]$, there exists a continuous function $f : X \rightarrow [a, b]$ such that $f(x) = a$ for all $x \in A$ and $f(x) = b$ for all $x \in B$.

Throughout this section, let A and B be disjoint closed subsets of a normal space X .

Exercise 18.2. *Show that it suffices to show that there exists a continuous function $f : X \rightarrow [0, 1]$ such that $f(x) = 0$ for all $x \in A$, and $f(x) = 1$ for all $x \in B$.*

Exercise 18.3. *Let J be the set of all rational numbers in the interval $[0, 1]$. Show that there exists a family $\{U_j\}_{j \in J}$ of open sets such that $A \subseteq U_0$, $X - B = U_1$, and $\text{Cl}(U_i) \subseteq U_j$ whenever i and j are elements of J with $i < j$.*

Exercise 18.4. *Extend the family of open sets in 18.3 by defining $U_j = \emptyset$ for rational j less than 0, and $U_j = X$ for rational j greater than 1. We now have an open set U_j for each rational number j . For each $x \in X$, define $f(x) = \inf\{j \mid x \in U_j\}$.*

1. *Show that for each $x \in X$, the set $\{j \mid x \in U_j\}$ is nonempty and bounded below. [This establishes the fact that $f(x)$ exists for all $x \in X$.]*
2. *Show that $f(x) \in [0, 1]$ for all $x \in X$.*
3. *Show that $f(x) = 0$ for all $x \in A$, and $f(x) = 1$ for all $x \in B$.*

It remains to show f is continuous.

Exercise 18.5. Show the following.

1. If $x \in \text{Cl}(U_j)$, then $f(x) \leq j$.
2. If $x \notin U_j$, then $f(x) \geq j$.

Exercise 18.6. Show that given $x \in X$ and given an open interval (a, b) with $f(x) \in (a, b)$ there exists an open set $U \subseteq X$ such that $x \in U$ and $f(U) \subseteq (a, b)$.

[Hint: if i and j are rational numbers with $a < i < f(x) < j < b$, then $U = U_j - \text{Cl}(U_i)$ will work.]

Exercise 18.7. Show that f is continuous.

Chapter 19

Uniform Convergence

Definition 19.1. Let X be a set, and let Y be a metric space with metric d . A sequence $\{f_n\}$ of functions $f_n : X \rightarrow Y$ is said to **converge uniformly** to $f : X \rightarrow Y$ if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exists a positive integer N such that $d(f_n(x), f(x)) < \varepsilon$ for all $n > N$ and all $x \in X$.

Theorem 19.2. Let X be a topological space and let Y be a metric space. If $\{f_n\}$ is a sequence of continuous functions $f_n : X \rightarrow Y$ that converge uniformly to $f : X \rightarrow Y$, then f is continuous.

Exercise 19.3. Let X be a topological space and let Y be a metric space. Suppose $\{f_n\}$ is a sequence of continuous functions $f_n : X \rightarrow Y$, and suppose $\{x_n\}$ is a sequence of points in X that converge to $x \in X$. Show that if $\{f_n\}$ converges uniformly to $f : X \rightarrow Y$, then $\{f_n(x_n)\}$ converges to $f(x)$.

Theorem 19.4. Weierstrauss M-Test

Let X be a set, and let $\{f_i\}$ be a sequence of functions $f_i : X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. For each positive integer n , let $s_n : X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be defined by $s_n(x) = \sum_{i=1}^n f_i(x)$. If there exists a sequence $\{M_i\}$ of real numbers such that $|f_i(x)| \leq M_i$ for all $x \in X$ and all positive integers i , and if $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} M_i$ converges, then $\{s_n\}$ converges uniformly to a function $s : X \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$.

Chapter 20

Tietze Extension Theorem

The bulk of this section is a sequence of exercises which together prove the following theorem. At the end of the section are a couple of corollaries to Urysohn's Lemma and the theorem.

Theorem 20.1. Tietze Extension Theorem

Let X be a normal space and let A be a closed subset of X .

- 1. Any continuous function on A to a closed interval $[a, b]$ extends to a continuous function on all of X to $[a, b]$.*
- 2. Any continuous function on A to the set of real numbers extends to a continuous function on all of X to the set of real numbers.*

Throughout this section let A be a closed subset of a normal space X .

Exercises 20.2.

- 1. Show that to prove statement 1 of the Tietze Extension Theorem, it suffices to prove it in the case $[a, b] = [-1, 1]$.*
- 2. Show that to prove statement 2 of the Tietze Extension Theorem, it suffices to prove that any continuous function from A to $(-1, 1)$ may be extended to a continuous function from X to $(-1, 1)$.*

Exercise 20.3. *Let r be a positive real number and suppose $f : A \rightarrow [-r, r]$ is continuous. Show that there exists a continuous function $g : X \rightarrow [-\frac{r}{3}, \frac{r}{3}]$ so that $|g(x) - f(x)| \leq \frac{2}{3}r$ for all $x \in A$. [Hint: Use Urysohn's Lemma with the sets $f^{-1}([-r, -\frac{r}{3}])$ and $f^{-1}([\frac{r}{3}, r])$.]*

Exercise 20.4. *Let $f : A \rightarrow [-1, 1]$ be a continuous function. Show that there exists a sequence $\{g_i\}$ of continuous functions on X such that the image of g_i lies in $[-\frac{2^{i-1}}{3^i}, \frac{2^{i-1}}{3^i}]$ for each positive integer i and such that*

$$\left| f(x) - \sum_{i=1}^n g_i(x) \right| \leq \left(\frac{2}{3} \right)^n.$$

Exercises 20.5. Let f and the sequence $\{g_i\}$ be as in 20.4, and let g be the function on X defined by $g(x) = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} g_i(x)$.

1. Show that for each $x \in X$, $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} g_i(x)$ does in fact converge.
2. Show that $g(x) \in [-1, 1]$ for all $x \in X$.
3. Show that $g(x) = f(x)$ for all $x \in A$.
4. Show that g is continuous.

Thus part (1) of the Tietze Extension Theorem has been proved.

Exercise 20.6. Let $f : A \rightarrow (-1, 1)$ be a continuous function. By what has been proven, there exists a continuous function $g : X \rightarrow [-1, 1]$ such that $g(x) = f(x)$ for all $x \in A$.

1. Show that there exists a continuous function $k : X \rightarrow [0, 1]$ such that $k(x) = 1$ for all $x \in A$ and $k(x) = 0$ for all $x \in g^{-1}(\{-1, 1\})$.
2. Let h be the function on X defined by $h(x) = k(x)g(x)$. Show that h is a continuous extension of f and the range of h lies in $(-1, 1)$.

Corollary 20.7. If a connected normal space has the property that singleton sets are closed and if the space has more than one point, then it is uncountable.

Definition 20.8. A space Y has the **universal extension property** if whenever X is a normal space, A is a closed subset of X , and $f : A \rightarrow Y$ is a continuous function, then there exists a continuous extension of f on X .

Corollary 20.9. For any set J , $\mathbb{R}^J$ has the universal extension property.

Chapter 21

The Definition of the Fundamental Group

Let X be a topological space.

Definition 21.1. Let x and y be points in X , and let $\alpha : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ and $\beta : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ both be paths from x to y . A **path homotopy** between α and β is a continuous function $F : [0, 1] \times [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ that satisfies each of the four following criteria:

1. $F(0, t) = x$ for all $t \in [0, 1]$.
2. $F(1, t) = y$ for all $t \in [0, 1]$.
3. $F(s, 0) = \alpha(s)$ for all $s \in [0, 1]$.
4. $F(s, 1) = \beta(s)$ for all $s \in [0, 1]$.

If there exists a path homotopy between α and β , then we say α and β are **(path) homotopic**.

Proposition 21.2. Given points x and y in X , homotopy defines an equivalence relation on the set of all paths in X from x to y .

Definition 21.3. Let x, y , and z be points in X . If $\alpha : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ is a path from x to y , and if $\beta : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ is a path from y to z , then the **product** (or **concatenation**) of α and β is the function $\alpha\beta : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ defined by

$$\alpha\beta(s) = \begin{cases} \alpha(2s) & \text{if } 0 \leq s \leq \frac{1}{2} \\ \beta(2s - 1) & \text{if } \frac{1}{2} \leq s \leq 1 \end{cases}$$

Proposition 21.4. Let x, y , and z be points in X .

1. If $\alpha : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ is a path from x to y and $\beta : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ is a path from y to z then $\alpha\beta$ is a path from x to z .
2. If α_1 and α_2 are homotopic paths from x to y and if β_1 and β_2 are homotopic paths from y to z , then $\alpha_1\beta_1$ is homotopic to $\alpha_2\beta_2$.

Definition 21.5. 1. For any point $x \in X$ the **constant path at x** is the function $e_x : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ defined by $e_x(s) = x$.

2. For any path $\alpha : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ the **inverse** (or **reverse**) of α is the function $\alpha^{-1} : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ defined by $\alpha^{-1}(s) = \alpha(1 - s)$.

Proposition 21.6. Let x and y be points in X and let $\alpha : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ be a path from x to y :

1. The paths αe_y and $e_x \alpha$ are both homotopic to α .
2. The inverse of α is a path from y to x .
3. The path $\alpha \alpha^{-1}$ is homotopic to e_x , and the path $\alpha^{-1} \alpha$ is homotopic to e_y .

Proposition 21.7. Let x, y, z , and w be points in X . If $\alpha : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ is a path from x to y , $\beta : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ is a path from y to z , and $\gamma : [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ is a path from z to w , then $\alpha(\beta\gamma)$ is homotopic to $(\alpha\beta)\gamma$.

Definition 21.8. Fix a point a in X . A **loop based at a** is a path in X from a to a . Via 21.2 we have an equivalence relation on the set of all loops based at a . For any loop α based at a , let $\langle \alpha \rangle$ denote the equivalence class of α . The set of all equivalence classes is denoted $\pi_1(X, a)$; that is, $\pi_1(X, a) = \{ \langle \alpha \rangle \mid \alpha \text{ is a loop based at } a \}$. On $\pi_1(X, a)$ define an operation by $\langle \alpha \rangle \langle \beta \rangle = \langle \alpha\beta \rangle$.

Theorem 21.9. The operation defined on $\pi_1(X, a)$ in 21.8 is well-defined, and $\pi_1(X, a)$ under this operation is a group.

Definition 21.10. The set $\pi_1(X, a)$ together with the operation defined in 21.8 is called the **fundamental group of X based at a** .

Theorem 21.11. If X is path-connected and a and b are any two points in X , then $\pi_1(X, a)$ is isomorphic to $\pi_1(X, b)$.

Theorem 21.12. Let X and Y be topological spaces, and let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ be continuous. Fix a point a in X and define $f_* : \pi_1(X, a) \rightarrow \pi_1(Y, f(a))$ by $f_*(\langle \alpha \rangle) = \langle f \circ \alpha \rangle$. Then f_* is well-defined and is a group homomorphism.

Definition 21.13. Given a continuous function $f : X \rightarrow Y$ between topological spaces X and Y and given some fixed point a in X , the function f_* defined in 21.12 is called the **induced homomorphism**.

Theorem 21.14. Induced homomorphisms satisfy the following categorical properties:

1. If $f : X \rightarrow Y$ and $g : Y \rightarrow Z$ are continuous functions on topological spaces, then $(g \circ f)_* = g_* \circ f_*$.

2. $(Id_X)_* = Id_{\pi_1(X,a)}$, where Id_X and $Id_{\pi_1(X,a)}$ denote the identity functions on X and $\pi_1(X,a)$ respectively.

Corollary 21.15. *If X and Y are path-connected topological spaces and if X is homeomorphic to Y , then the fundamental groups of X and Y (regardless of where they are based) are isomorphic.*

Chapter 22

Covering Spaces

Definition 22.1. Let X and $\tilde{X}$ be topological spaces. Let $p : X \rightarrow \tilde{X}$ be continuous and onto. A subset U of X is said to be **evenly covered** by p if there exists a family of open sets $\{V_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ such that

1. $p^{-1}(U) = \bigcup_{\alpha \in J} V_\alpha$,
2. V_α and V_β are disjoint whenever $\alpha \neq \beta$, and
3. for each $\alpha \in J$ the restriction $p|_{V_\alpha}$ of p to V_α is a homeomorphism from V_α onto U .

Each such set V_α is called a **sheet** or **slice** of $p^{-1}(U)$. If every point of X is contained in an evenly covered open set, then p is called a **covering map** and $\tilde{X}$ is called a **covering space** or **cover** of X .

Exercise 22.2. The **unit circle** is $S^1 = \{(x, y) \in \mathbb{R}^2 \mid x^2 + y^2 = 1\}$. Show that the function $p : S^1 \rightarrow S^1$ defined by $p(x, y) = (x^2 - y^2, 2xy)$ is a covering map. (Include a verification that $p(x, y) \in S^1$ for all $(x, y) \in S^1$.) Draw a picture illustrating how p maps S^1 to S^1 .

Exercise 22.3. Show that the function $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow S^1$ defined by

$$p(x) = (\cos 2\pi x, \sin 2\pi x)$$

is a covering map. (You may use without proof that the cosine and sine functions are continuous.) Draw a picture illustrating how f maps $\mathbb{R}$ to S^1 .

Proposition 22.4. If $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ and $q : \tilde{Y} \rightarrow Y$ are covering maps then $p \times q : \tilde{X} \times \tilde{Y} \rightarrow X \times Y$ is a covering map.

Proposition 22.5. If $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ is a covering map and a is a point in X , then $p^{-1}(\{a\})$ has the discrete topology.

Proposition 22.6. Let $\tilde{X}$ be connected, and let $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ be a covering map. If a and b are points in X , then the cardinality of $p^{-1}(\{a\})$ and $p^{-1}(\{b\})$ are equal.

Remark 22.7. In the situation of Proposition 22.6, if $p^{-1}(\{a\})$ is finite with k elements, we say $\tilde{X}$ is a **k -fold cover**.

Theorem 22.8. Lesbegue Number Lemma

Let X be a compact metric space and let $\mathcal{U}$ be an open cover of X . Then there exists a positive real number δ such that if A is a subset of X with $\text{diameter}(A) < \delta$, then there exists an element U of $\mathcal{U}$ such that $A \subseteq U$.

Definition 22.9. Given a compact metric space X and an open cover $\mathcal{U}$ of X , such a number δ as guaranteed by 22.8 is called a **Lesbegue number** for the cover $\mathcal{U}$.

Definition 22.10. Let X, Y , and Z be topological spaces, and let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ and $g : Z \rightarrow Y$ be continuous functions. A **lift** of g is a continuous function $\tilde{g} : Z \rightarrow X$ such that $f \circ \tilde{g} = g$. If $\tilde{g}$ is a lift of g , we say, “ g lifts to $\tilde{g}$.”

Theorem 22.11. Path Lifting Lemma

Let $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ be a covering map. Let a be a point in X and let $\tilde{a} \in p^{-1}(a)$. Then every path in X beginning at a has a unique lift to a path beginning at $\tilde{a}$.

Theorem 22.12. Homotopy Lifting Lemma

Let $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ be a covering map. Let a be a point in X and let $\tilde{a} \in p^{-1}(a)$. Suppose $F : [0, 1] \times [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ is continuous and $F(0, 0) = a$. Then F lifts to a map $\tilde{F} : [0, 1] \times [0, 1] \rightarrow \tilde{X}$ with $\tilde{F}(0, 0) = \tilde{a}$. Moreover, if F is a path homotopy, $\tilde{F}$ is a path homotopy.

Theorem 22.13. Let $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ be a covering map. Suppose a and b are points in X , and suppose α and β are homotopic paths from a to b . Let $\tilde{a} \in p^{-1}(a)$, and let $\tilde{\alpha}$ and $\tilde{\beta}$ denote the respective lifts of α and β beginning at $\tilde{a}$. Then $\tilde{\alpha}$ and $\tilde{\beta}$ end at the same point and are homotopic.

Lemma 22.14. Let $p : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow S^1$ be the covering map from 22.3 defined by $p(x) = (\cos 2\pi x, \sin 2\pi x)$. Let $\mathbb{Z}$ be the group of integers under addition. Define $\psi : \pi_1(S^1, (1, 0)) \rightarrow \mathbb{Z}$ by $\psi(\langle \alpha \rangle) = \tilde{\alpha}(1)$, where $\tilde{\alpha}$ is the unique lift of α beginning at 0. Then ψ is a well-defined homomorphism.

Theorem 22.15. $\pi_1(S^1, (1, 0))$ is isomorphic to $\mathbb{Z}$, the group of integers under addition.

Theorem 22.16. Let $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ be a covering map. Let a be a point in X , and let $\tilde{a} \in p^{-1}(a)$. Then $p_* : \pi_1(\tilde{X}, \tilde{a}) \rightarrow \pi_1(X, a)$ is an injection.

Theorem 22.17. Let $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ be a covering map. Let a be a point in X and let $\tilde{a}, \tilde{b} \in p^{-1}(a)$. If $\tilde{X}$ is path connected, then the two subgroups $p_*(\pi_1(\tilde{X}, \tilde{a}))$ and $p_*(\pi_1(\tilde{X}, \tilde{b}))$ are conjugate.

Definition 22.18. A space X is called **simply connected** if X is path connected and has a trivial fundamental group.

Exercise 22.19. Show that any convex subset of $\mathbb{R}^n$ is simply connected. [A subset A of $\mathbb{R}^n$ is called **convex** if for any points x and y in A , the set $\{tx + (1 - t)y \mid t \in [0, 1]\}$ is a subset of A .]

Theorem 22.20. Let $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ be a covering map. Let a be a point in X . If $\tilde{X}$ is path connected, there exists a surjection $\psi : \pi_1(X, a) \rightarrow p^{-1}(a)$. If $\tilde{X}$ is simply connected, then ψ is a bijection.

Definition 22.21. A covering space $\tilde{X}$ of X is called a **universal cover** of X if $\tilde{X}$ is simply connected.

Exercise 22.22.

1. Show that $S^1 \times S^1$ is homeomorphic to the torus as defined as a quotient space of the square in section 14.
2. Find a universal cover of the torus.

Chapter 23

Computation of Some Fundamental Groups

Theorem 23.1. Simple Version of Van Kampen's Theorem

Suppose X is a topological space such that $X = U \cup V$ where U and V are open and $U \cap V \neq \emptyset$. Let $x \in U \cap V$. If $U \cap V$ is path connected and $\pi_1(U, x)$ and $\pi_1(V, x)$ are trivial, then $\pi_1(X, x)$ is trivial.

Definition 23.2. The n -sphere is

$$S^n = \{(x_1, \dots, x_{n+1}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n+1} \mid x_1^2 + \dots + x_{n+1}^2 = 1\}.$$

On S^n define an equivalence relation by $x \sim y$ if and only if $x = y$ or $x = -y$. The quotient space of S^n under this equivalence relation is called **projective n -space**, and is denoted P^n . The space P^2 is called the **projective plane**.

Exercise 23.3. Show that the fundamental group of S^n is trivial for $n \geq 2$.

Exercise 23.4.

1. Check that the relation defined in 23.2 really is an equivalence relation.
2. Show that S^n is a two-fold cover of P^n .
3. Compute the fundamental group of P^n for $n \geq 1$.

Theorem 23.5. If X and Y are topological spaces and a and b are points in X and Y respectively, then $\pi_1(X \times Y, (a, b))$ is isomorphic to $\pi_1(X, a) \times \pi_1(Y, b)$.

Exercise 23.6. Compute the fundamental group of the torus.

Definition 23.7. Let X be a topological space, and let A be a subset of X . We say that A is a **strong deformation retract** of X if there exists a continuous function $F : X \times [0, 1] \rightarrow X$ such that

1. $F(x, 0) = x$ for all $x \in X$,
2. $F(x, 1) \in A$ for all $x \in X$, and

3. $F(a, t) = a$ for all $a \in A$ and $t \in [0, 1]$.

Such a map F is called a **strong deformation retraction**.

Theorem 23.8. Let A be a strong deformation retract of X . Then the inclusion function induces an isomorphism of fundamental groups.

Exercise 23.9.

1. Show that $\mathbb{R}^n$ minus a singleton set is simply connected for $n \geq 3$.
2. Show that the fundamental group of $\mathbb{R}^2$ minus a singleton set is isomorphic to the group of integers under addition.

Exercise 23.10. An **annulus** is a space homeomorphic to $S^1 \times [0, 1]$. Compute the fundamental groups of an annulus and the Mobius band.

Definition 23.11. Let $X = \bigcup_{i=1}^k (S^1 \times \{i\})$ and define an equivalence relation on X as follows: a point (a, i) is only equivalent to itself when $a \neq (1, 0)$, and for all i and j , $((1, 0), i)$ is equivalent to $((1, 0), j)$. The resulting quotient space is called the **bouquet of k circles**. A bouquet of two circles is called the **figure eight**.

Exercise 23.12.

1. Draw a universal cover of the figure eight.
2. Use the drawing from (1) to give a geometric argument that the fundamental group of the figure eight is not abelian.

Exercise 23.13. Show that no two of the spaces in the following list are homeomorphic: $[0, 1], \mathbb{R}^1, S^1, \mathbb{R}^2, S^2, P^2, \mathbb{R}^2$ minus a singleton set, the torus, the figure eight, $\mathbb{R}^3$.

Chapter 24

Further Results on Covering Maps

Throughout this section, suppose all topological spaces are path connected and locally path connected.

Theorem 24.1. General Lifting Lemma

Let $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ be a covering map, and let $\tilde{a} \in p^{-1}(a)$. Let $f : Y \rightarrow X$ be a continuous function with $f(b) = a$. Then f has a lift $\tilde{f} : Y \rightarrow \tilde{X}$ such that $\tilde{f}(b) = \tilde{a}$ if and only if $f_*(\pi_1(Y, b)) \subseteq p_*(\pi_1(\tilde{X}, \tilde{a}))$. Moreover if f has a lift $\tilde{f} : Y \rightarrow \tilde{X}$ such that $\tilde{f}(b) = \tilde{a}$, then $\tilde{f}$ is unique.

Definition 24.2. Two covering maps $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ and $q : \tilde{X}' \rightarrow X$ are **equivalent** if there exists a homeomorphism $h : \tilde{X} \rightarrow \tilde{X}'$ such that $q \circ h = p$.

Exercise 24.3. Show that given a space X , the relation defined in 24.2 is in fact an equivalence relation.

Theorem 24.4. Let $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ and $q : \tilde{X}' \rightarrow X$ be covering maps with $p(\tilde{a}) = q(\tilde{a}') = a$. Then p and q are equivalent if and only if $p_*(\pi_1(\tilde{X}, \tilde{a}))$ and $q_*(\pi_1(\tilde{X}', \tilde{a}'))$ are conjugate subgroups of $\pi_1(X, a)$.

Corollary 24.5. Given a space X , its universal cover is unique up to homeomorphism.

Exercise 24.6. Classify all (equivalence classes of) covering maps of S^1 .

Definition 24.7. Let $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ be a covering map. A **deck transformation** is a homeomorphism $h : \tilde{X} \rightarrow \tilde{X}$ such that $p \circ h = p$.

Theorem 24.8. Given a covering map $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$, the set of all deck transformations forms a group under the operation of composition.

Exercise 24.9. Describe explicitly the group of deck transformations for the universal cover of the torus given in 22.22.

Theorem 24.10. Let $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ be a covering map and let $\tilde{a}, \tilde{b} \in p^{-1}(a)$. Then there exists a deck transformation $h : \tilde{X} \rightarrow \tilde{X}$ such that $h(\tilde{a}) = \tilde{b}$ if and only if $p_*(\pi_1(\tilde{X}, \tilde{a})) = p_*(\pi_1(\tilde{X}, \tilde{b}))$. If such an h exists, it is unique.

Definition 24.11. Let $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ be a covering map, and let $\tilde{a} \in p^{-1}(a)$. If $p_*(\pi_1(\tilde{X}, \tilde{a}))$ is normal in $\pi_1(X, a)$, then the covering map is said to be **regular**.

Exercise 24.12. Give an example of a covering map that is not regular.

Theorem 24.13. Let $p : \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ be a regular covering map, and let $\tilde{a} \in p^{-1}(a)$. Then the group of deck transformations is isomorphic to the quotient group $\pi_1(X, a)/p_*(\pi_1(\tilde{X}, \tilde{a}))$.

Chapter 25

Supplementary Section A: Images and Inverse Images of Functions

Definition 25.1. Let $f : A \rightarrow B$ be any function between any two sets A and B . If A_0 is a subset of A , we denote by $f(A_0)$ the subset of B that consists of all images of elements of A_0 under the function f ; this set is called the **image** of A_0 under f . Formally,

$$f(A_0) = \{b \in B \mid b = f(a) \text{ for some } a \in A_0\}.$$

On the other hand, if B_0 is a subset of B we denote by $f^{-1}(B_0)$ the set of all elements of A whose images under f lie in B_0 ; it is called the **inverse image** of B_0 under f . Formally, $f^{-1}(B_0) = \{a \in A \mid f(a) \in B_0\}$.

Exercises 25.2.

1. Let $f : A \rightarrow B$. Let $A_0 \subseteq A$ and $B_0 \subseteq B$.
 - (a) Show $f^{-1}(f(A_0)) \supseteq A_0$. Show $f^{-1}(f(A_1)) = A_1$ for all $A_1 \subseteq A$ if and only if f is injective.
 - (b) Show $f(f^{-1}(B_0)) \subseteq B_0$. Show $f(f^{-1}(B)) = B$ if and only if f is surjective.
2. Let $f : A \rightarrow B$. Let $B_0 \subseteq B$ and $B_1 \subseteq B$. Show the following.
 - (a) If $B_0 \subseteq B_1$, then $f^{-1}(B_0) \subseteq f^{-1}(B_1)$.
 - (b) $f^{-1}(B_0 - B_1) = f^{-1}(B_0) - f^{-1}(B_1)$.
3. Let $f : A \rightarrow B$. Let $B_\alpha \subseteq B$ for all α in some index set J . Show the following.
 - (a) $f^{-1}(\cup_{\alpha \in J} B_\alpha) = \cup_{\alpha \in J} f^{-1}(B_\alpha)$.
 - (b) $f^{-1}(\cap_{\alpha \in J} B_\alpha) = \cap_{\alpha \in J} f^{-1}(B_\alpha)$.
4. Let $f : A \rightarrow B$. Let $A_0 \subseteq A$ and $A_1 \subseteq A$. Show the following.

- (a) If $A_0 \subseteq A_1$, then $f(A_0) \subseteq f(A_1)$.
 - (b) $f(A_0 - A_1) \supseteq f(A_0) - f(A_1)$; give an example where equality fails.
5. Let $f : A \rightarrow B$. Let $A_\alpha \subseteq A$ for all α in some index set J . Show the following.
- (a) $f(\cup_{\alpha \in J} A_\alpha) = \cup_{\alpha \in J} f(A_\alpha)$.
 - (b) $f(\cap_{\alpha \in J} A_\alpha) \subseteq \cap_{\alpha \in J} f(A_\alpha)$; give an example where equality fails.

Chapter 26

Supplementary Section B: Series of Real Numbers

Definition 26.1. Let $\{a_i\}$ be a sequence of real numbers. For each positive integer n the n -th **partial sum** s_n is defined by $s_n = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i$. If the sequence $\{s_n\}$ of partial sums converges to s , we say that the series $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} a_i$ **converges** and its **sum** is s . If the series $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} |a_i|$ converges we say that $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} a_i$ **converges absolutely**.

Exercises 26.2. Let $\{a_i\}$ and $\{b_i\}$ be sequences of real numbers.

- (a) If $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} a_i$ converges and has sum s , and if $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} b_i$ converges and has sum t , then $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} (a_i + b_i)$ converges and has sum $s + t$.
(b) If $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} a_i$ converges and has sum s , and if c is a constant, then $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} ca_i$ converges and has sum cs .
- If $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} a_i$ converges absolutely, then $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} a_i$ converges.
- If a_i is nonnegative for all i , then $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} a_i$ converges if and only if the sequence of partial sums is bounded.
- If the series $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} a_i$ converges, then the sequence $\{a_i\}$ converges to 0.